Deep Learning

Lecture 3 – Deep Neural Networks

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Exam Quizzes

Quiz	Opens	Closes
Exam Quiz 1	Wed 28.10.	Wed 04.11., 14:00
Exam Quiz 2	Wed 11.11.	Wed 25.11., 14:00
Exam Quiz 3	Wed 02.12.	Wed 16.12., 14:00
Exam Quiz 4	Wed 13.01.	Wed 20.01., 14:00
Exam Quiz 5	Wed 20.01.	Wed 27.01., 14:00

- Each exam quiz opens after the lecture and is on **Ilias**
- **To take the exam, you must participate in at least 3 of the 5 exam quizzes!**

Agenda

3.1 Backpropagation with Tensors

3.2 Multi-Layer Perceptrons

3.3 Output and Loss Functions

3.1
Backpropagation with Tensors

Recap: Backpropagation with Scalars

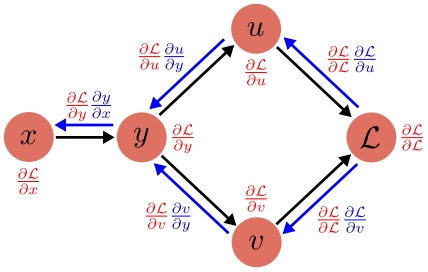
Forward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
(1) \quad & y = y(x) \\
(2) \quad & u = u(y) \\
(2) \quad & v = v(y) \\
(3) \quad & \mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}(u, v)
\end{aligned}
$$

Backward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
(3) \quad & \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \\
(3) \quad & \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \\
(2) \quad & \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \\
(1) \quad & \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} \frac{\partial y}{\partial x}
\end{aligned}
$$

Loss: $\mathcal{L}(\, u(y(x)),\, v(y(x))\,)$



Step through it with numbers:

example “Fan-out > 1” on

Course website → Backprop 1D

Recap: Backpropagation with Scalars

Forward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
&(1) \quad y = y(x) \\
&(2) \quad u = u(y) \\
&(2) \quad v = v(y) \\
&(3) \quad \mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}(u, v)
\end{aligned}
$$

Backward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
&(3) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \\
&(3) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \\
&(2) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \\
&(1) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} \frac{\partial y}{\partial x}
\end{aligned}
$$

Implementation: Each variable/node is an object and has attributes `x.value` and `x.grad`. Values are computed **forward** and gradients **backward:**

$$
\begin{aligned}
&\texttt{x.value} = \texttt{Input} \\
&\texttt{y.value} = y(\texttt{x.value}) \\
&\texttt{u.value} = u(\texttt{y.value}) \\
&\texttt{v.value} = v(\texttt{y.value}) \\
&\texttt{L.value} = \mathcal{L}(\texttt{u.value}, \texttt{v.value})
\end{aligned}
$$

Recap: Backpropagation with Scalars

Forward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
&(1) \quad y = y(x) \\
&(2) \quad u = u(y) \\
&(2) \quad v = v(y) \\
&(3) \quad \mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}(u, v)
\end{aligned}
$$

Backward Pass:

$$
\begin{aligned}
&(3) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \\
&(3) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \mathcal{L}} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \\
&(2) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u} \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v} \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \\
&(1) \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y} \frac{\partial y}{\partial x}
\end{aligned}
$$

Implementation: Each variable/node is an object and has attributes `x.value` and `x.grad`. Values are computed **forward** and gradients **backward:**

$$\texttt{x.grad} = \texttt{y.grad} = \texttt{u.grad} = \texttt{v.grad} = 0$$

$$\texttt{L.grad} = 1$$

$$\texttt{u.grad} \mathrel{+}= \texttt{L.grad} * (\partial \mathcal{L}/\partial u)(\texttt{u.value}, \texttt{v.value})$$

$$\texttt{v.grad} \mathrel{+}= \texttt{L.grad} * (\partial \mathcal{L}/\partial v)(\texttt{u.value}, \texttt{v.value})$$

$$\texttt{y.grad} \mathrel{+}= \texttt{u.grad} * (\partial u/\partial y)(\texttt{y.value})$$

$$\texttt{y.grad} \mathrel{+}= \texttt{v.grad} * (\partial v/\partial y)(\texttt{y.value})$$

$$\texttt{x.grad} \mathrel{+}= \texttt{y.grad} * (\partial y/\partial x)(\texttt{x.value})$$

Scalar vs. Matrix Operations

So far we have considered computations on **scalars:**

$$y = \sigma(w_1 x + w_0)$$

We now consider computations on **vectors** and **matrices:**

$$\mathbf{y} = \sigma(\mathbf{A}\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}), \qquad \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^D,\ \mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{M \times D},\ \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^M$$

- σ is applied **elementwise:** $y_i = \sigma(u_i + b_i)$ with $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{A}\mathbf{x}$
- Matrix $\mathbf{A}$ and vector $\mathbf{b}$ are objects with attributes `value` and `grad`
- `A.grad` stores $\nabla_{\mathbf{A}} \mathcal{L}$ and has the same shape as `A.value` (since $\mathcal{L}$ is scalar)

Backpropagation on Loops

The matrix/vector computation

$$\mathbf{y} = \sigma(\underbrace{\mathbf{A}\mathbf{x}}_{=\mathbf{u}} + \mathbf{b}), \qquad \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^D,\ \mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{M \times D},\ \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^M$$

can be written as **loops over scalar operations:**

for i $\quad \texttt{u.value}[i] = 0$

for i,j $\quad \texttt{u.value}[i]\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{A.value}[i, j] * \texttt{x.value}[j]$

for i $\quad \texttt{y.value}[i] = \sigma(\texttt{u.value}[i] + \texttt{b.value}[i])$

Backpropagation on Loops

The backpropagated gradients, in **reverse order** of the forward loops:

Backward of the last loop, $\texttt{y.value}[i] = \sigma(\texttt{u.value}[i] + \texttt{b.value}[i])$:

$$\text{for i} \quad \texttt{u.grad}[i] \mathrel{+}= \texttt{y.grad}[i] * \sigma'(\texttt{u.value}[i] + \texttt{b.value}[i])$$

$$\text{for i} \quad \texttt{b.grad}[i] \mathrel{+}= \texttt{y.grad}[i] * \sigma'(\texttt{u.value}[i] + \texttt{b.value}[i])$$

Backward of the matrix product, $\texttt{u.value}[i] \mathrel{+}= \texttt{A.value}[i, j] * \texttt{x.value}[j]$:

$$\text{for i,j} \quad \texttt{A.grad}[i, j] \mathrel{+}= \texttt{u.grad}[i] * \texttt{x.value}[j]$$

$$\text{for i,j} \quad \texttt{x.grad}[j] \mathrel{+}= \texttt{u.grad}[i] * \texttt{A.value}[i, j]$$

- **Red:** back-propagated gradients
- **Blue:** local gradients

Backpropagation on Loops

In practice, all deep learning operations can be written using loops over scalar assignments. Example for a **higher-order tensor:**

$$\text{for h,i,j,k} \quad \texttt{U.value}[h,i,j] \texttt{ += } \texttt{A.value}[h,i,k] * \texttt{B.value}[h,j,k]$$
$$\text{for h,i,j} \quad \texttt{Y.value}[h,i,j] = \sigma(\texttt{U.value}[h,i,j])$$

(for each h a matrix product $\mathbf{U}_h = \mathbf{A}_h \mathbf{B}_h^\top$: a *batched* matrix product)

Backpropagation loops:

$$\text{for h,i,j} \quad \texttt{U.grad}[h,i,j] \texttt{ += } \texttt{Y.grad}[h,i,j] * \sigma'(\texttt{U.value}[h,i,j])$$
$$\text{for h,i,j,k} \quad \texttt{A.grad}[h,i,k] \texttt{ += } \texttt{U.grad}[h,i,j] * \texttt{B.value}[h,j,k]$$
$$\text{for h,i,j,k} \quad \texttt{B.grad}[h,j,k] \texttt{ += } \texttt{U.grad}[h,i,j] * \texttt{A.value}[h,i,k]$$

Backpropagation on Loops: Matrix Form

$$\mathbf{y} = \sigma(\mathbf{A}\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}), \qquad \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^D,\ \mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^{M \times D},\ \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^M$$

Each backward loop is **one matrix operation** on the whole array:

for i $\quad \texttt{u.grad}[i]\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{y.grad}[i] * \sigma'(\texttt{u.value}[i] + \texttt{b.value}[i])$

$\Rightarrow \quad \texttt{u.grad}\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{y.grad} \odot \sigma'(\texttt{u.value} + \texttt{b.value})$ elementwise; same for `b.grad`

for i,j $\quad \texttt{A.grad}[i, j]\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{u.grad}[i] * \texttt{x.value}[j]$

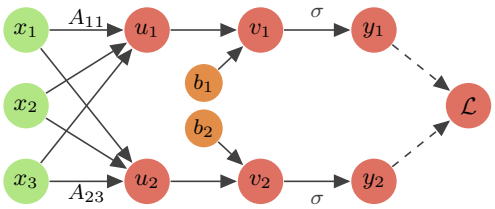
$\Rightarrow \quad \texttt{A.grad}\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{u.grad}\ \texttt{x.value}^\top$ outer product, $M \times D$

for i,j $\quad \texttt{x.grad}[j]\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{u.grad}[i] * \texttt{A.value}[i, j]$

$\Rightarrow \quad \texttt{x.grad}\ \texttt{+=}\ \texttt{A.value}^\top\ \texttt{u.grad}$ matrix $\times$ vector, sums over i

Scalar vs. Matrix Computation Graph

Graph of scalars: one node per number

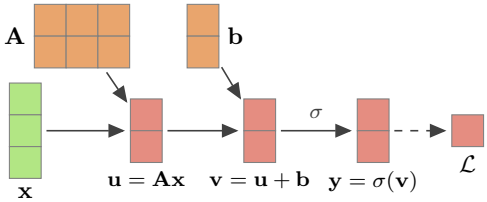


$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u_i} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial b_i} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial v_i} = \sigma'(v_i)\,\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y_i}$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial A_{ij}} = \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u_i}\,x_j$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial x_j} = \sum_i A_{ij}\,\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial u_i}$$

Graph of matrices: one node per array



$$\nabla_{\mathbf{u}}\mathcal{L} = \nabla_{\mathbf{b}}\mathcal{L} = \nabla_{\mathbf{v}}\mathcal{L} = \sigma'(\mathbf{v}) \odot \nabla_{\mathbf{y}}\mathcal{L}$$

$$\nabla_{\mathbf{A}}\mathcal{L} = \nabla_{\mathbf{u}}\mathcal{L}\,\mathbf{x}^\top \quad \text{outer product}$$

$$\nabla_{\mathbf{x}}\mathcal{L} = \mathbf{A}^\top\,\nabla_{\mathbf{u}}\mathcal{L} \quad \text{matrix} \times \text{vector}$$

Minibatching

Source code has two components:

- Slow part: Sequential operations (Python)
- Fast part: Vector/matrix operations (NumPy, BLAS, CUDA)

Goal:

- Fast part should dominate computation (wall clock time)
- Reduce the number of slow sequential operations (e.g., Python loops) by running the fast vector/matrix operations on several data points jointly
- This is called **minibatching** and used in stochastic gradient descent

Minibatching

Affine + Sigmoid: (applied to N data points simultaneously)

$$\mathbf{Y} = \sigma(\underbrace{\mathbf{X}\mathbf{A}}_{=\mathbf{U}} + \mathbf{B})$$

- Each row in $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times D}$ is a data point, bias $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^{M}$ is broadcast to $\mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times M}$

Loops now include **batch index b:**

for b,i $\quad \texttt{U.value}[b, i] = 0$

for b,i,j $\quad \texttt{U.value}[b, i] \texttt{ += X.value}[b, j] * \texttt{A.value}[j, i]$

for b,i $\quad \texttt{Y.value}[b, i] = \sigma(\texttt{U.value}[b, i] + \texttt{B.value}[i])$

- Only inputs and outputs depend on batch index b, not the parameters (e.g., `A`, `B`)
- By convention, the gradients are averaged over the batch

Implementation

Affine Transformation: (applied to N data points simultaneously)

$$\mathbf{Y} = \mathbf{X}\mathbf{A} + \mathbf{B}$$

- Each row in $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times D}$ is a data point, bias $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^{M}$ is broadcast to $\mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times M}$

Implementation in EDF:

```
def forward(self):
    self.value = np.matmul(self.x.value,self.w.A.value) + self.w.b.value

def backward(self):
    self.x.addgrad(np.matmul(self.grad,self.w.A.value.transpose()))
    self.w.b.addgrad(self.grad)
    self.w.A.addgrad(self.x.value[:,:,np.newaxis] * self.grad[:,np.newaxis,:])
```

- Computation graphs are easy to understand using the loop notation
- Efficient implementation using NumPy primitives not always obvious

3.2
Multi-Layer Perceptrons

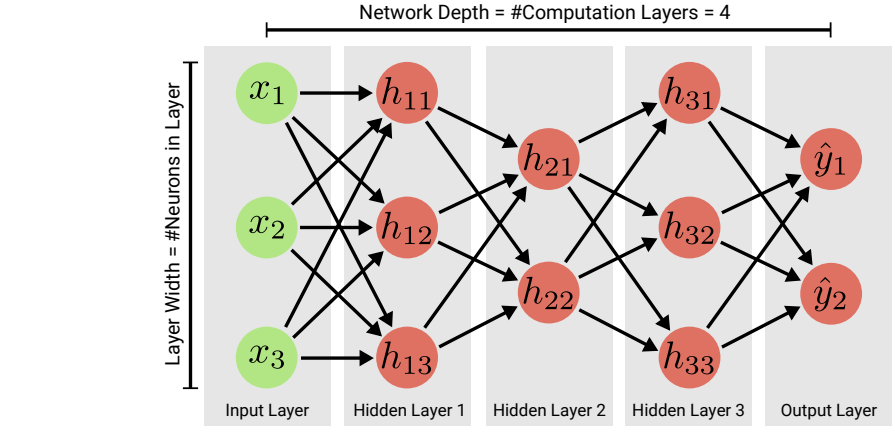
Multi-Layer Perceptrons

- MLPs are **feedforward** neural networks (no feedback connections)
- They **compose** several non-linear functions $\mathbf{f}(\mathbf{x}) = \hat{\mathbf{y}}(\mathbf{h}_3(\mathbf{h}_2(\mathbf{h}_1(\mathbf{x}))))$
  where $\mathbf{h}_i(\cdot)$ are called **hidden layers** and $\hat{\mathbf{y}}(\cdot)$ is the **output layer**
- The data specifies only the behavior of the output layer (thus the name “hidden”)
- Each layer i comprises multiple **neurons** j which are implemented as **affine transformations** $(\mathbf{a}^\top \mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b})$ followed by non-linear **activation functions** (g):

$$h_{ij} = g(\mathbf{a}_{ij}^\top \mathbf{h}_{i-1} + \mathbf{b}_{ij})$$

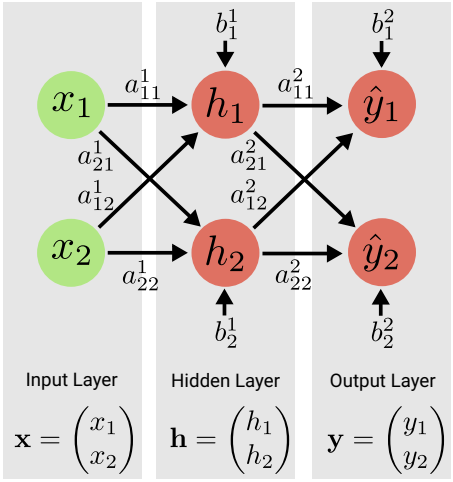
- Each neuron in each layer is **fully connected** to all neurons of the previous layer
- The overall length of the chain is the **depth** of the model $\Rightarrow$ “Deep Learning”
- MLPs appear in modern networks as **Linear** or **Dense** layers (e.g., in transformers)

MLP Network Architecture



- Neurons are grouped into layers, each neuron **fully connected** to all prev. ones
- **Hidden layer** $\mathbf{h}_i = g(\mathbf{A}_i\mathbf{h}_{i-1} + \mathbf{b}_i)$ with **activation function** $g(\cdot)$ and weights $\mathbf{A}_i, \mathbf{b}_i$
- **Output layer** $\mathbf{y} = h(\mathbf{A}_L\mathbf{h}_{L-1} + \mathbf{b}_L)$ with **activ. function** $h(\cdot)$ and weights $\mathbf{A}_L, \mathbf{b}_L$

MLP Network Architecture: Example



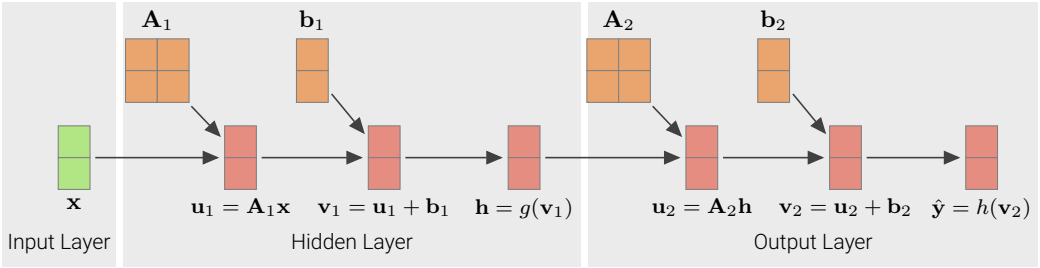
$$\mathbf{h} = g(\mathbf{A}_1\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}_1)$$
$$\mathbf{y} = h(\mathbf{A}_2\mathbf{h} + \mathbf{b}_2)$$

$$\mathbf{A}_l = \begin{pmatrix} a_{11}^l & a_{12}^l \\ a_{21}^l & a_{22}^l \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\mathbf{b}_l = \begin{pmatrix} b_1^l \\ b_2^l \end{pmatrix}$$

- Example MLP with $L = 2$ layers of width 2 and parameters $\{\mathbf{A}_1, \mathbf{A}_2, \mathbf{b}_1, \mathbf{b}_2\}$

MLP Network Architecture: Example in Matrix Form

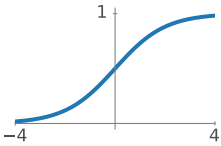


- The MLP from the previous slide as a graph with **one node per array**
- Each layer has three steps: **matrix product**, **bias**, **elementwise activation**
- All layers have width 2: $\mathbf{A}_1, \mathbf{A}_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$ and $\mathbf{b}_1, \mathbf{b}_2, \mathbf{h}, \hat{\mathbf{y}} \in \mathbb{R}^2$

Activation Functions g(·)

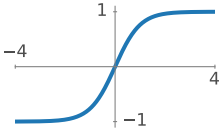
Sigmoid (~1986)

$$\sigma(x) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-x}}$$



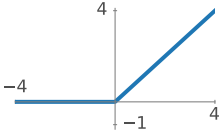
tanh (~1989)

$$\tanh(x)$$



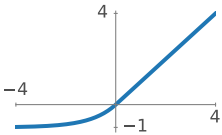
ReLU (~2010)

$$\max(0, x)$$



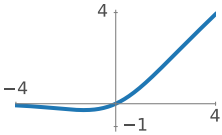
ELU (~2015)

$$\begin{cases} x & x \geq 0 \\ \alpha(e^x - 1) & x < 0 \end{cases}$$



SiLU (~2017)

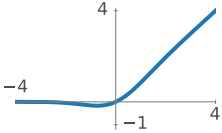
$$x\,\sigma(x)$$



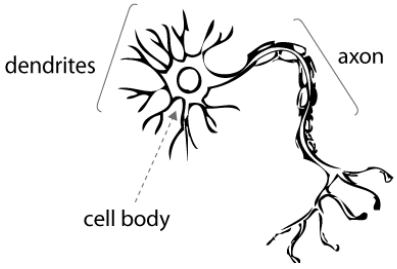
GELU (~2016)

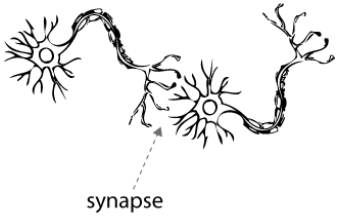
$$x\,\Phi(x)$$

Φ: Gaussian CDF



Neural Motivation





- Neurons in the brain are structured in layers
- They receive input from many other units and compute their own activation
- How brain-like modern networks are is an **open research question**
- Our goal is not to model the brain, but to build great models

Training

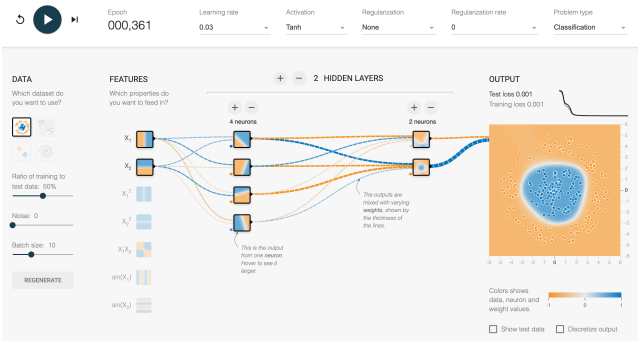
Algorithm for training an MLP using (stochastic) gradient descent:

1. Initialize weights $\mathbf{w}$, pick learning rate η and minibatch size $|\mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}|$
2. Draw (random) minibatch $\mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}} \subseteq \mathcal{X}$
3. For all elements $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \in \mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}$ of minibatch (in parallel) do:
   3.1 Forward propagate $\mathbf{x}$ through network to calculate $\mathbf{h}_1, \mathbf{h}_2, \ldots, \hat{\mathbf{y}}$
   3.2 Backpropagate gradients through network to obtain $\nabla_{\mathbf{w}} \mathcal{L}(\hat{\mathbf{y}}, \mathbf{y})$
4. Update gradients: $\mathbf{w}^{t+1} = \mathbf{w}^t - \eta \frac{1}{|\mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}|} \sum_{(\mathbf{x},\mathbf{y}) \in \mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}} \nabla_{\mathbf{w}} \mathcal{L}(\hat{\mathbf{y}}, \mathbf{y})$
5. If validation error decreases, go to step 2, otherwise stop

Remarks:

- Large datasets typically do not fit into GPU memory $\Rightarrow |\mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}| < |\mathcal{X}|$
- Our examples on the next slides are small $\Rightarrow |\mathcal{X}_{\text{batch}}| = |\mathcal{X}|$

Interactive: TensorFlow Playground



Note: Keep the inputs X_1, X_2 and switch off the hand-crafted features ($X_1^2, \sin(X_1), \ldots$).

Try it yourself!

Train an MLP in the browser:

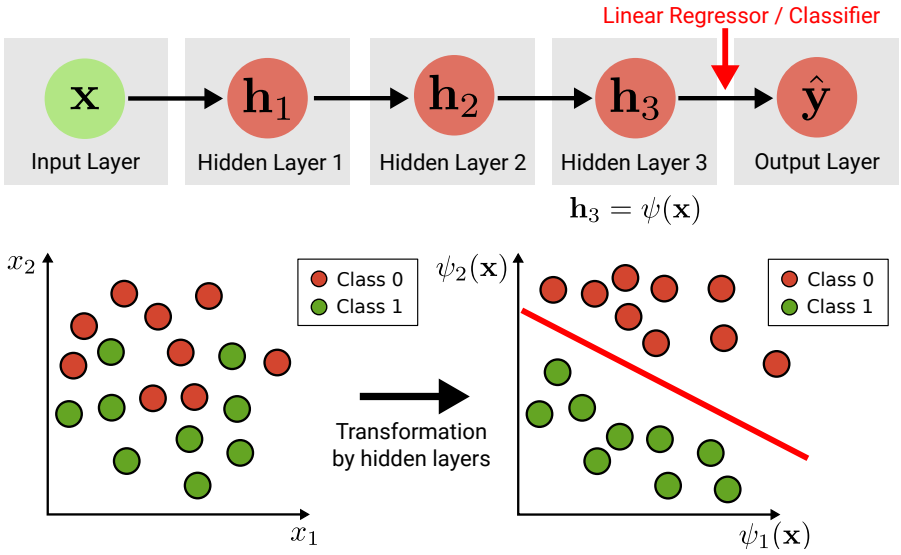
- Four 2D datasets
- Layers and neurons
- Activation, learning rate

playground.tensorflow.org

Stretching Break

5 Minutes

Feature Learning Perspective



Expressiveness

This following two-layer MLP

$$\mathbf{h} = g(\mathbf{A}_1\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}_1)$$
$$\mathbf{y} = g(\mathbf{A}_2\mathbf{h} + \mathbf{b}_2)$$

can be written as

$$\mathbf{y} = g(\mathbf{A}_2\, g(\mathbf{A}_1\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}_1) + \mathbf{b}_2)$$

What if we would be using a linear activation function $g(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x}$?

$$\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{A}_2\left(\mathbf{A}_1\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}_1\right) + \mathbf{b}_2 = \mathbf{A}_2\mathbf{A}_1\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{A}_2\mathbf{b}_1 + \mathbf{b}_2 = \mathbf{A}\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}$$

- With linear activations, a multi-layer network can only express linear functions
- What is the model capacity of MLPs with non-linear activation functions?

Universal Approximation Theorem

Theorem 1

Let σ be any continuous discriminatory function. Then finite sums of the form

$$G(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{j=1}^{N} \alpha_j \sigma(\mathbf{a}_j^\top \mathbf{x} + b_j)$$

are dense in the space of continuous functions $C(I_n)$ on the n-dimensional unit cube I_n. In other words, given any $f \in C(I_n)$ and $\epsilon > 0$, there is a sum, $G(\mathbf{x})$ for which

$$|G(\mathbf{x}) - f(\mathbf{x})| < \epsilon \quad \text{for all} \quad \mathbf{x} \in I_n$$

Remark: Has been proven for various activation functions (e.g., Sigmoid, ReLU).

Cybenko: Approximation by superposition of a sigmoidal function. Mathematics of Control, Signals, and Systems, 1989.

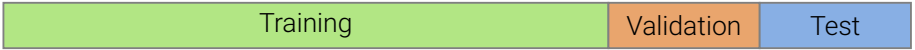
Generalization

- Universal approximation is a statement about **expressiveness**:
  A network that approximates the function f **exists**
- It does not tell us how large N must be, whether training finds this network,
  or how the network behaves on **unseen inputs**
- Lecture 1: A model that is flexible enough to fit any training set tends to **overfit**
- Modern networks have far more parameters than training points,
  and can even fit **random labels** perfectly
- Yet, when trained on real data, they **generalize** remarkably well
- **Why** neural networks generalize so well is still **not understood** today

Zhang, Bengio, Hardt, Recht and Vinyals: Understanding deep learning requires rethinking generalization. ICLR, 2017.

Train / Validation / Test Split

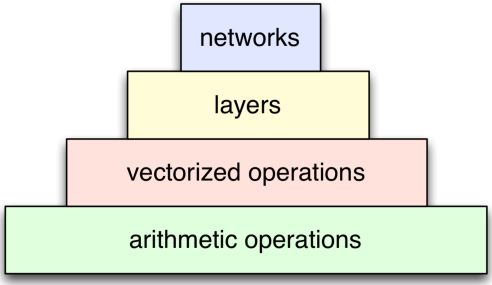
In machine learning, we always **split our dataset** into three disjoint parts:



- **Training set:** fit the parameters $\mathbf{w}$ with gradient descent
- **Validation set:** choose hyperparameters (architecture, learning rate, …) and decide when to stop training
- **Test set:** estimate the error on unseen data, used **once** at the very end
- Never tune on the test set: it then no longer measures generalization

New to this? A visual explainer:
MLU-Explain → Train, Test, and Validation Sets

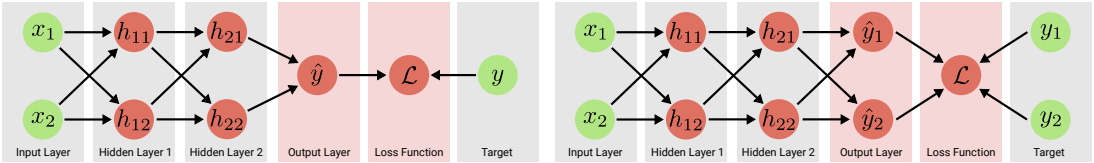
Levels of Abstraction



- When designing neural networks and machine learning algorithms, you'll need to simultaneously think at multiple level's of abstraction
- "The psychological profiling [of a programmer] is mostly the ability to shift levels of abstraction, from low level to high level. To see something in the small and to see something in the large." [Donald E. Knuth]

3.3
Output and Loss Functions

Output and Loss Functions

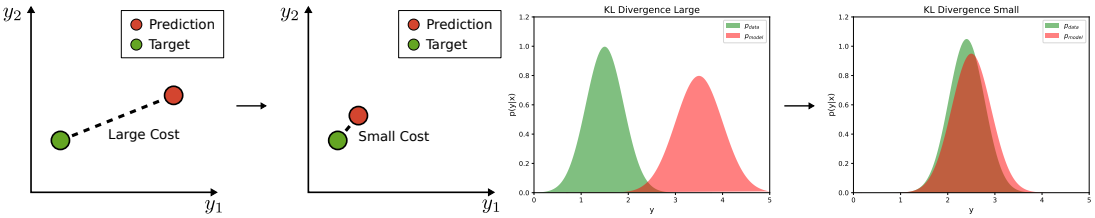


- The **output layer** is the last layer in a neural network which computes the output
- The **loss function** compares the result of the output layer to the target value(s)
- Choice of output layer and loss function depends on task (discrete, continuous, ..)

Loss Function

What is the goal of optimizing the loss function?

- Tries to make the **model output** (=prediction) similar to the **target** (=data)
- Think of the loss function as a **measure of cost** being paid for a prediction



Loss Function

How to design a good loss function?

- A loss function can be any differentiable function that we wish to optimize
- Deriving the cost function from the **maximum likelihood principle** removes the burden of manually designing the cost function for each model
- Consider the output of the neural network as **parameters of a distribution** over y_i

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{\mathbf{w}}_{ML} &= \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmax}}\ p_{model}(\mathbf{y}|\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{w}) \\ &\overset{\text{iid}}{=} \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmax}}\ \prod_{i=1}^{N} p_{model}(y_i|\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{w}) \\ &= \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmax}}\ \underbrace{\sum_{i=1}^{N} \log p_{model}(y_i|\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{w})}_{\text{Log-Likelihood}}\end{aligned}$$

Recap: Loss Functions from Lecture 2

Maximum likelihood: the loss is the **negative log-likelihood** $-\log p_{model}(y|\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w})$

Regression, $y \in \mathbb{R}$

Gaussian $\Rightarrow$ **squared loss**

$$\mathcal{L}(\hat{y}, y) = (\hat{y} - y)^2$$

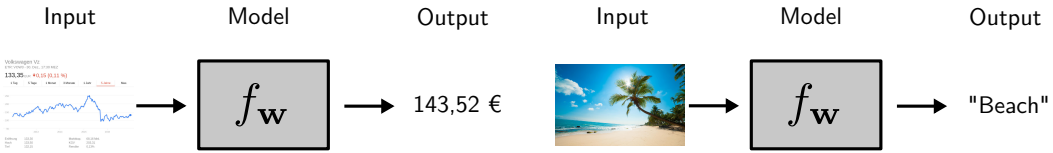
Binary classification, $y \in \{0, 1\}$

Bernoulli $\Rightarrow$ **binary cross-entropy**

$$\mathcal{L}(\hat{y}, y) = -y \log \hat{y} - (1 - y) \log(1 - \hat{y})$$

In lecture 2, $\hat{y} = f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})$ was linear; now it is an MLP, with the same losses.

Recap: Regression and Classification



- **Mapping:**
  - Regression: $f_{\mathbf{w}} : \mathbb{R}^N \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$
  - Binary Classification: $f_{\mathbf{w}} : \mathbb{R}^{W \times H} \rightarrow \{\text{“Beach”}, \text{“No Beach”}\}$
  - Multi-Class Classification: $f_{\mathbf{w}} : \mathbb{R}^{W \times H} \rightarrow \{\text{“Beach”}, \text{“Mountain”}, \text{“City”}, \text{“Forest”}\}$

Regression Problems

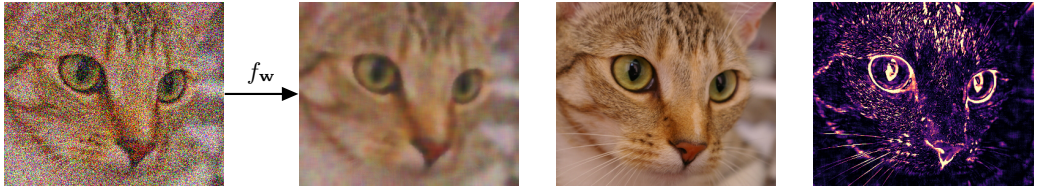
Regression with Many Outputs

- Often the target is not one number but many: $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^D$,
  e.g., an image with $D = H \times W \times 3$ values
- An **independent Gaussian** for each output d, with mean $\hat{y}_d$
- The negative log-likelihood is a **sum of squared errors:**

$$\mathcal{L}(\hat{\mathbf{y}}, \mathbf{y}) = \sum_{d=1}^{D} (\hat{y}_d - y_d)^2 = \|\hat{\mathbf{y}} - \mathbf{y}\|_2^2$$

- For images: the **pixel-wise** L_2 **loss**

Example: Image Denoising



input $\mathbf{x}$:
noisy image

prediction
$\hat{\mathbf{y}} = f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})$

target $\mathbf{y}$:
clean image

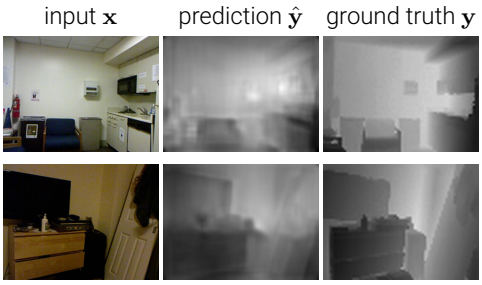
squared error
per pixel

- The output is an **image**: compare it with the ground-truth image, pixel by pixel

$$\mathcal{L}(\hat{\mathbf{y}}, \mathbf{y}) = \frac{1}{D}\sum_{p=1}^{D}(\hat{y}_p - y_p)^2 \qquad \text{(pixel-wise } L_2 \text{ loss, MSE)}$$

- Training data is easy to make: take clean images and add noise

Example: Depth Estimation

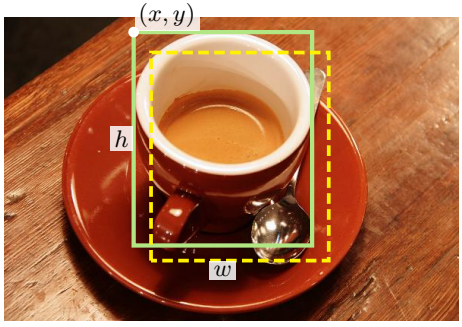


- Predict the **depth** of each pixel
- Output: a **depth map** (an image)
- Loss: per-pixel L_2 on log-depth

$$\mathcal{L}(\hat{\mathbf{y}}, \mathbf{y}) = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{p=1}^{n} (\log \hat{y}_p - \log y_p)^2$$

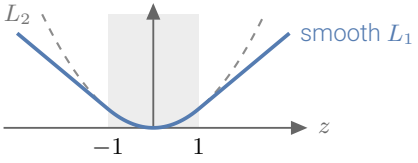
Eigen, Puhrsch and Fergus: Depth Map Prediction from a Single Image using a Multi-Scale Deep Network. NIPS, 2014.

Example: Bounding Boxes



— ground truth $\mathbf{y}$ - - prediction $\hat{\mathbf{y}}$

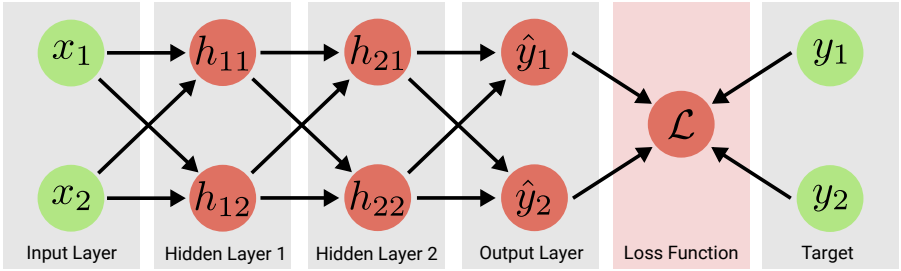
- **Object detection:** box around each object
- A box is 4 numbers (x, y, w, h): $D = 4$
- Fast R-CNN: **smooth L_1 loss** on each error $z = \hat{y}_d - y_d$



$\frac{1}{2}z^2$ for $|z| < 1$, then linear: $|z| - \frac{1}{2}$

Girshick: Fast R-CNN. ICCV, 2015. Image: scikit-image sample data (CC0).

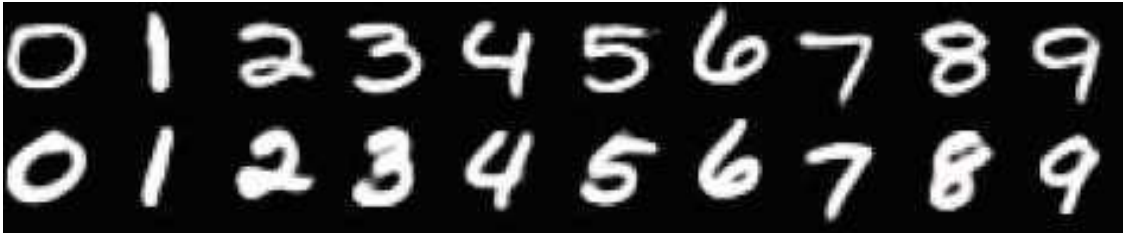
Loss Function for Regression Problems



Task	**Output $\hat{\mathbf{y}}$**	**Loss**
Regression (lecture 2)	one number	squared (L_2)
Image denoising	image	pixel-wise L_2 (MSE)
Depth estimation	depth map	per-pixel L_2 on log-depth
Bounding boxes	4 numbers	smooth L_1

Classification Problems

Image Classification

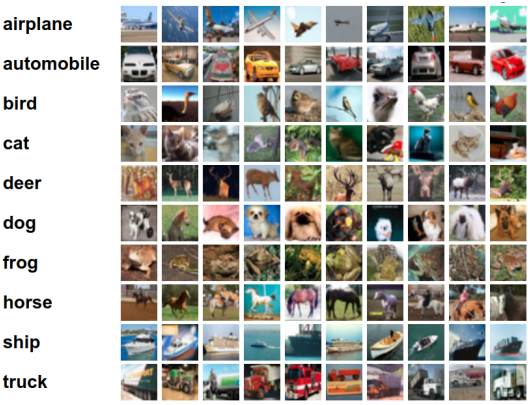


MNIST Handwritten Digits:

- Historically, one of the most popular datasets in ML
- Based on data from the National Institute of Standards and Technology
- Hand written by Census Bureau employees and high-school children
- Resolution: 28 x 28 pixels, 60k training samples with labels, 10k test samples

LeCun, Bottou, Bengio and Haffner: Gradient-based learning applied to document recognition. IEEE, 1998.

Image Classification

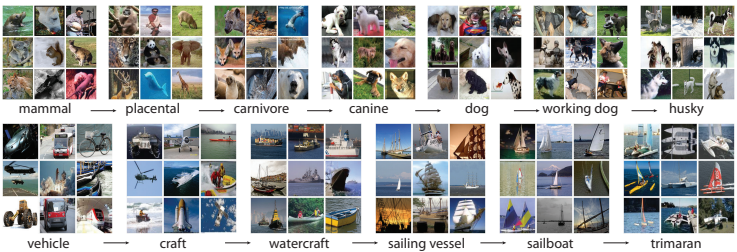


CIFAR-10:

- 60k color images, 32×32 pixels
- 10 classes, 6k images per class
- 50k training and 10k test images

Krizhevsky: Learning Multiple Layers of Features from Tiny Images. Technical report, 2009.

Image Classification

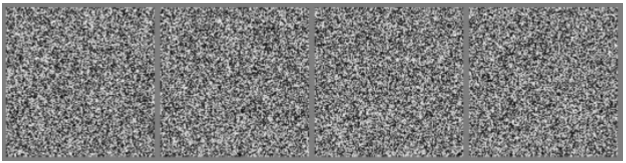


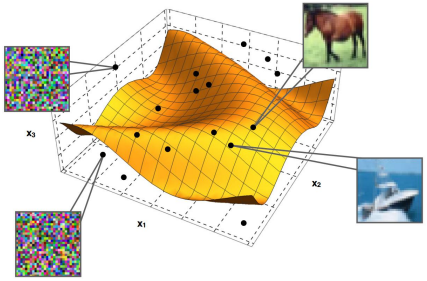
ImageNet (ILSVRC 2012), the benchmark of the deep learning breakthrough:

- 1000 classes, many of them fine-grained (e.g., dog breeds)
- 1.2 million training images, 50k validation images
- Color photos of varying size, typically resized to 224×224

Deng et al.: ImageNet: A Large-Scale Hierarchical Image Database. CVPR, 2009. Russakovsky et al.: ImageNet Large Scale Visual Recognition Challenge. IJCV, 2015.

Image Classification





Curse of Dimensionality:

- There exist $2^{784} = 10^{236}$ possible binary images of resolution 28 x 28 pixels
- MNIST is gray-scale, thus 256^{784} combinations $\Rightarrow$ impossible to enumerate
- Why is image classification with just 60k labeled training images even possible?
- Answer: Images concentrated on low-dimensional manifold in high-dim. space

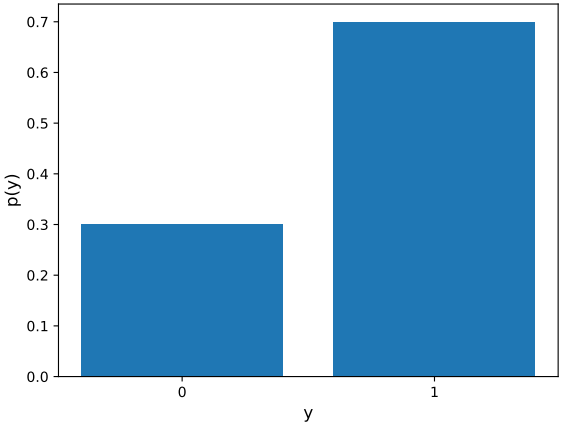
Goldt, Mézard, Krzakala and Zdeborová: Modelling the influence of data structure on learning in neural networks: the hidden manifold model. Arxiv, 2019.

Bernoulli Distribution

Bernoulli distribution:

$$p(y) = \mu^y \, (1 - \mu)^{(1-y)}$$

- μ: probability for $y = 1$
- Handles only two classes
  e.g. (“cats” vs. “dogs”)



Bernoulli Distribution / BCE Loss

Let $p_{model}(y|\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})^y \left(1 - f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})\right)^{(1-y)}$ be a **Bernoulli distribution**. We obtain:

$$\begin{aligned}
\hat{\mathbf{w}}_{ML} &= \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmax}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \log p_{model}(y_i|\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{w}) \\
&= \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmax}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \log \left[f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x}_i)^{y_i} \left(1 - f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x}_i)\right)^{(1-y_i)} \right] \\
&= \underset{\mathbf{w}}{\operatorname{argmin}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \underbrace{-y_i \log f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x}_i) - (1 - y_i) \log(1 - f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x}_i))}_{\text{BCE Loss}}
\end{aligned}$$

In other words, we minimize the **binary cross-entropy (BCE)** loss.

Remark: Last layer of $f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})$ can be a sigmoid function such that $f_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})^y \in [0, 1]$.

How can we scale this to multiple classes?

Categorical Distribution

Categorical distribution:

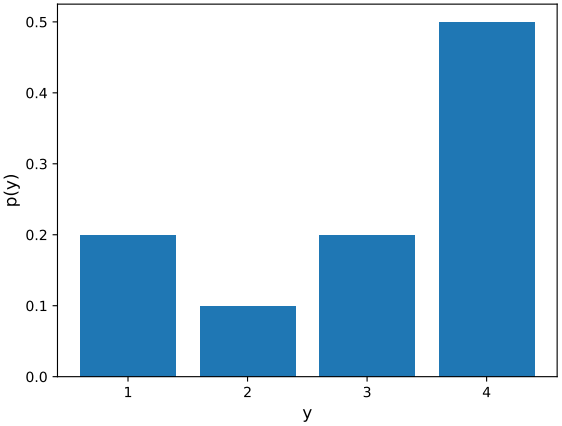
$$p(y = c) = \mu_c$$

- μ_c: probability for class c
- Multiple classes, multiple modes

Alternative notation:

$$p(\mathbf{y}) = \prod_{c=1}^{C} \mu_c^{y_c}$$

- $\mathbf{y}$: "one-hot" vector with $y_c \in \{0, 1\}$
- $\mathbf{y} = (0, \ldots, 0, 1, 0, \ldots, 0)^\top$ with all zeros except for one (the true class)



One-Hot Vector Representation

class	y	$\mathbf{y}$
	1	$(1,0,0,0)^\top$
	2	$(0,1,0,0)^\top$
	3	$(0,0,1,0)^\top$
	4	$(0,0,0,1)^\top$

- One-hot vector $\mathbf{y}$ with binary elements $y_c \in \{0, 1\}$
- Index c with $y_c = 1$ determines the correct class, and $y_k = 0$ for $k \neq c$
- Interpretation as discrete distribution with all probability mass at the true class
- Often used in ML as it can make formalism more convenient

Categorical Distribution / CE Loss

Let $p_{model}(\mathbf{y}|\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w}) = \prod_{c=1}^{C} f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x})^{y_c}$ be a **Categorical distribution**. We obtain:

$$\begin{aligned}
\hat{\mathbf{w}}_{ML} &= \operatorname*{argmax}_{\mathbf{w}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \log p_{model}(\mathbf{y}_i|\mathbf{x}_i, \mathbf{w}) \\
&= \operatorname*{argmax}_{\mathbf{w}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \log \prod_{c=1}^{C} f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}_i)^{y_{i,c}} \\
&= \operatorname*{argmin}_{\mathbf{w}} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \underbrace{\sum_{c=1}^{C} -y_{i,c} \log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}_i)}_{\text{CE Loss}}
\end{aligned}$$

In other words, we minimize the **cross-entropy (CE)** loss.

The target $\mathbf{y} = (0, \ldots, 0, 1, 0, \ldots, 0)^\top$ is a "one-hot" vector with y_c its c'th element.

Why the Cross-Entropy Loss?

Cross-entropy between the data distribution p and the model q:

$$H(p, q) = -\sum_x p(x) \log q(x) = H(p) + \mathrm{KL}(p \,\|\, q)$$

For a one-hot target $\mathbf{y}$, this is our CE loss $-\log q(y)$. Other motivations:

- **Compression:** with the model q, we can encode x with $-\log_2 q(x)$ bits. Minimizing $H(p, q)$ compresses the data as well as possible (at best: $H(p)$)
- **Honest probabilities:** the expected loss is minimal for $q = p$
- … and **many other motivations!**

Softmax

How can we ensure that $f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x})$ predicts a **valid Categorical (discrete) distribution?**

- We must guarantee (1) $f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) \in [0, 1]$ and (2) $\sum_{c=1}^{C} f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = 1$
- An element-wise sigmoid as output function would ensure (1) but not (2)
- Solution: The **softmax function** guarantees both (1) and (2):

$$\text{softmax}(\mathbf{x}) = \left(\frac{\exp(x_1)}{\sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(x_k)}, \dots, \frac{\exp(x_C)}{\sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(x_k)} \right)$$

- Let $\mathbf{s}$ denote the network output after the last affine layer (=scores). Then:

$$f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{\exp(s_c)}{\sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k)} \quad \Rightarrow \quad \log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = s_c - \log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k)$$

- Remark: s_c is a direct contribution to the loss function, i.e., it does not saturate

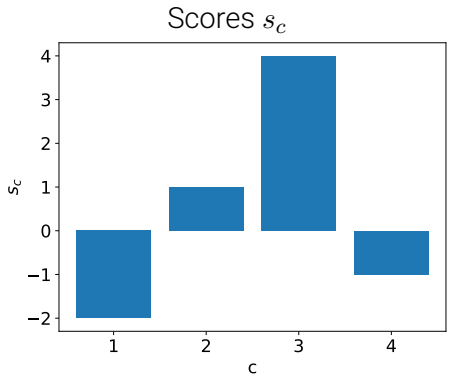
Log Softmax

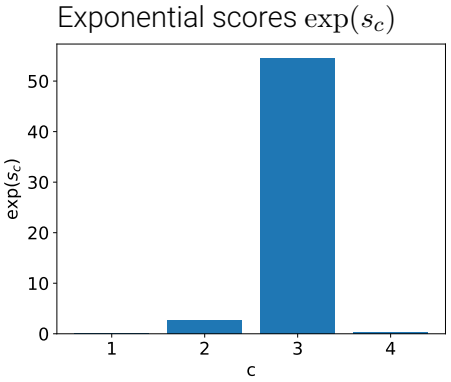
Intuition: Assume c is the correct class. Our goal is to maximize the log softmax:

$$\log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = s_c - \log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k)$$

- The first term encourages the score s_c for the correct class c to increase
- The second term encourages all scores in $\mathbf{s}$ to decrease
- The second term can be approximated by: $\log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k) \approx \max_k s_k$ as $\exp(s_k)$ is insignificant for all $s_k < \max_k s_k$
- Thus, the loss always strongly penalizes the most active incorrect prediction
- If the correct class already has the largest score (i.e., $s_c = \max_k s_k$), both terms roughly cancel and the example will contribute little to the overall training cost

Log Softmax Example





- The second term becomes: $\log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k) = 4.06 \approx s_3 = \max_k s_k$
- For $c = 2$ we obtain: $\log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = s_c - \log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k) = 1 - 4.06 \approx -3$
- For $c = 3$ we obtain: $\log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x}) = s_c - \log \sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k) = 4 - 4.06 \approx 0$

Softmax

- Predicting C values/scores overparameterizes the Categorical distribution
- As the distribution sums to 1 only $C1$ parameters are necessary
- Example: Consider $C = 2$ and fix one degree of freedom ($x_2 = 0$):

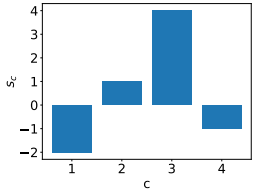
$$
\begin{aligned}
\text{softmax}(\mathbf{x}) &= \left(\frac{\exp(x_1)}{\exp(x_1) + \exp(x_2)}, \frac{\exp(x_2)}{\exp(x_1) + \exp(x_2)} \right) \\
&= \left(\frac{\exp(x_1)}{\exp(x_1) + 1}, \frac{1}{\exp(x_1) + 1} \right) \\
&= \left(\frac{1}{1 + \exp(-x_1)}, 1 - \frac{1}{1 + \exp(-x_1)} \right) \\
&= (\sigma(x_1), 1 - \sigma(x_1))
\end{aligned}
$$

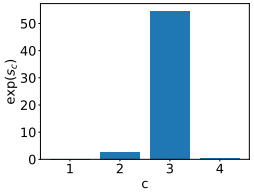
- The softmax is a **multi-class generalization** of the sigmoid function
- In practice, the overparameterized version is often used (simpler to implement)

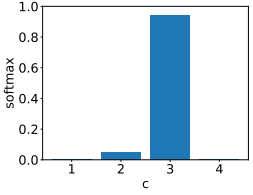
Softmax

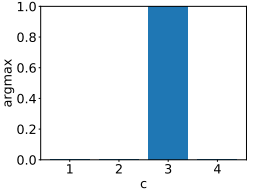
$$\text{softmax}(\mathbf{s}) = \left(\frac{\exp(s_1)}{\sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k)}, \ldots, \frac{\exp(s_C)}{\sum_{k=1}^{C} \exp(s_k)} \right)$$

- The name “softmax” is confusing, “soft argmax” would be more precise as it is a continuous and differentiable version of argmax (in one-hot representation)
- Example with four classes:









https://jramkiss.github.io/2020/07/29/overconfident-nn/

Softmax

- Softmax responds to differences between inputs
- It is invariant to adding the same scalar to all its inputs:

$$\mathrm{softmax}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathrm{softmax}(\mathbf{x} + c)$$

- We can therefore derive a numerically more stable variant:

$$\mathrm{softmax}(\mathbf{x}) = \mathrm{softmax}(\mathbf{x} - \max_{k=1..L} x_k)$$

- Allows accurate computation even when $\mathbf{x}$ is large
- Illustrates again that softmax depends on differences between scores

Cross Entropy Loss with Softmax Example

Putting it together: Cross Entropy Loss for a single training sample $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \in \mathcal{X}$:

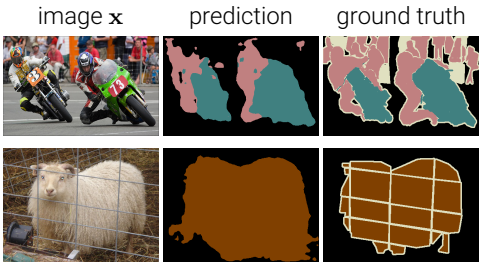
$$\text{CE Loss: } \sum_{c=1}^{C} -y_c \log f_{\mathbf{w}}^{(c)}(\mathbf{x})$$

Example: Suppose $C = 4$ and 4 samples $\mathbf{x}$ with labels $\mathbf{y}$ (log = natural logarithm)

Input $\mathbf{x}$	Label $\mathbf{y}$	Predicted scores $\mathbf{s}$	softmax$(\mathbf{s}) = \mathbf{f}_{\mathbf{w}}(\mathbf{x})$	CE Loss
	$(1,0,0,0)^\top$	$(+3,+1,-1,-1)^\top$	$(0.85,0.12,0.02,0.02)^\top$	0.16
	$(0,1,0,0)^\top$	$(+3,+3,+1,+0)^\top$	$(0.46,0.46,0.06,0.02)^\top$	0.78
	$(0,0,1,0)^\top$	$(+1,+1,+1,+1)^\top$	$(0.25,0.25,0.25,0.25)^\top$	1.38
	$(0,0,0,1)^\top$	$(+3,+2,+3,-1)^\top$	$(0.42,0.16,0.42,0.01)^\top$	4.87

- Sample 4 contributes most strongly to the loss function! (elephant in the room)

Example: Semantic Segmentation



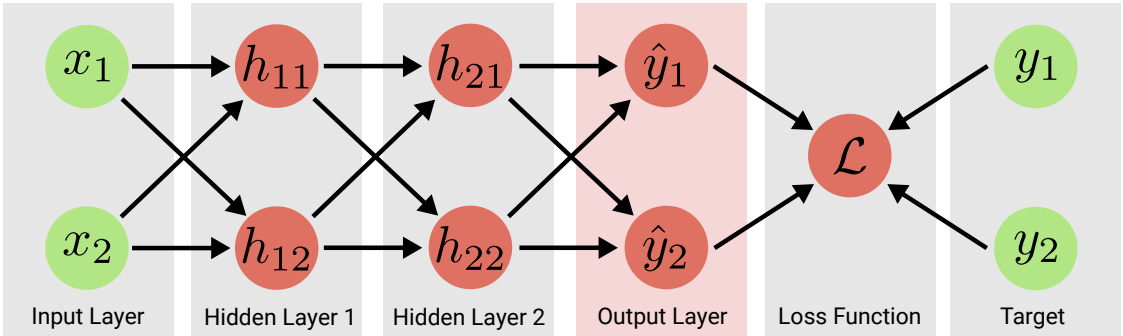
- **Classify every pixel** into C classes
- Output: softmax over C classes per pixel
- Loss: **cross-entropy per pixel**, summed

$$\mathcal{L} = \sum_{p} \sum_{c=1}^{C} -y_{p,c} \log \hat{y}_{p,c}$$

- Like pixel-wise L_2: one term per pixel

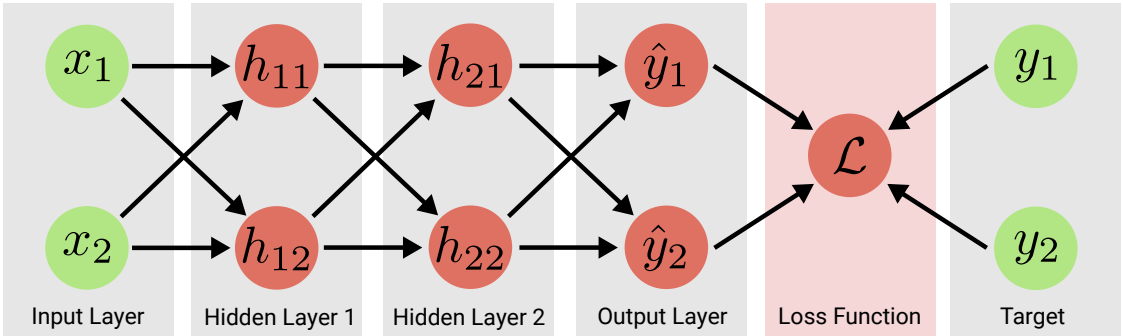
Long, Shelhamer and Darrell: Fully Convolutional Networks for Semantic Segmentation. CVPR, 2015.

Output Layer for Classification Problems



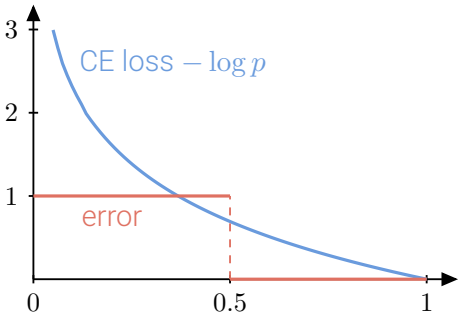
- For 2 classes, we can predict 1 value and use a sigmoid, or 2 values with softmax
- For $C > 2$ classes we typically predict C scores and use a softmax non-linearity

Loss Function for Classification Problems



- For 2 classes, we use the binary cross-entropy loss (BCE)
- For $C > 2$ classes, we use the cross-entropy loss (CE)

The Loss is a Proxy



Two classes: correct if $p > 0.5$

- In training, we minimize the **loss**, e.g. the cross-entropy (CE)
- We often care about a different **metric**, e.g. the classification error
- The error is **piecewise constant**: its gradient is zero almost everywhere
- The CE loss is a differentiable **proxy**: lowering it pushes p towards 1

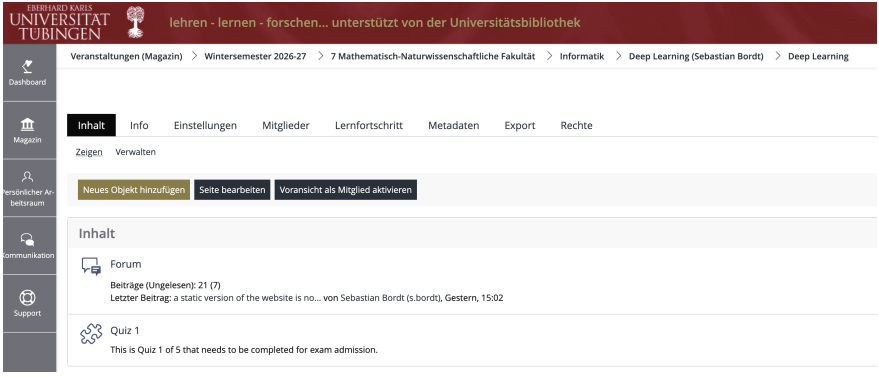
What Do We Actually Care About?

The loss is a tool for training. What we care about are properties of the model:

- **Generalization:** a low error on new data, not only on the training data
- **Cost of errors:** missing a tumor is worse than a false alarm
- **Calibration:** predicted probabilities that we can trust
- **Robustness:** small changes of the input do not change the prediction
- **Fairness and safety:** similar errors across groups, no harmful outputs

Example: language models are trained to predict the next token with the CE loss, but we want them to be helpful, correct and safe

Exam Quiz 1 is Now Live on Ilias



- The first of 5 exam quizzes, in the Ilias course *Deep Learning*
- You have **one week** to participate
- You need to participate in at least 3 of the 5 exam quizzes for exam admission

Break

- **Now: 30 minute break**
  - Complete **Exam Quiz 1** on **Ilias**
  - Vote for the exercises that you want discussed in the tutorial
- **After that: Tutorial**
  - Discussion of exercise sheet 1

Vote for exercises!

Exercise discussion survey